

4 Generalised Linear Models

4.1 Introductory remarks

- Let $f(\mathbf{x})$ be a non-linear feature mapping
- Aim: Models with nonlinear mapping of feature vectors into a transformation space
- Kernel functions [Aizerman et al., 1964] [Boser et al., 1992] $k: \mathcal{X} \times \mathcal{X} \mapsto \mathbb{R}$
 - Symmetric functions: $k(\mathbf{x}, \mathbf{x}') = k(\mathbf{x}', \mathbf{x})$
 - Important: due to the Mercer theorem, kernel functions can be represented by an inner product⁽¹⁾
- The so-called **kernel trick** means the following substitution: if an algorithm applies inner products to mappings of feature vectors $\mathbf{x}$, then we can replace the inner product by any choice of a kernel function.
- This way, we have an implicit nonlinear mapping without determining the mapping explicitly.
- Methods, where the kernel trick has been applied, are:
 - Perceptron networks [Aizerman et al., 1964; Freund & Schapire, 1999]
 - Support vector machines (SVM) [Boser et al., 1992],
 - Principal component analysis (PCA) [Schölkopf et al., 1998],
 - Fisher LDA [Mika et al., 1999; Roth & Steinhage, 2000; Baudat & Anouar, 2000],
 - Nearest neighbour classifiers [Baudat & Anouar, 2003],
 - Several methods of regression and of cluster analysis.

4.2 Dual Representations

- Many **linear models of regression and classification** can be expressed by dual representation using **kernel functions**
 - Given: generalised linear regression model
- (4.1)

- The solution $\mathbf{w}^*$ is searched by minimising the regularised sum of squared errors as objective function:
- (4.2)

- **Solution:**
- (4.3)

- Linear combination of the vectors $\mathbf{f}(\mathbf{x})$
 - Represented by the so-called **design matrix** $\mathbf{F}$, which contains $\mathbf{f}(\mathbf{x})$ as row vectors
 - Linear factors are by vector $\mathbf{a} \in \mathbb{R}^N$ having the following components:
- (4.4)

- **Dual representation:** reformulation of eq. (4.2), in which $\mathbf{w} = \mathbf{F}^T \mathbf{a}$ and $\mathbf{t} \in \mathbb{R}^N$ are used (see exercise)

$$J(\mathbf{a}) = \frac{1}{2} \mathbf{a}^T \mathbf{F} \mathbf{F}^T \mathbf{F} \mathbf{F}^T \mathbf{a} - \mathbf{a}^T \mathbf{F} \mathbf{F}^T \mathbf{t} + \frac{1}{2} \mathbf{t}^T \mathbf{t} + \frac{\lambda}{2} \mathbf{a}^T \mathbf{F} \mathbf{F}^T \mathbf{a} \quad (4.5)$$

- Introduction of the **Gram matrix:**⁽²⁾
which is a $N \times N$ symmetric matrix
having the following elements:⁽³⁾

- (4.5) can be reformulated (the way from (4.1) to (4.6) will be demonstrated during the exercise)

$$J(\mathbf{a}) = \frac{1}{2} \mathbf{a}^T \mathbf{K} \mathbf{K} \mathbf{a} - \mathbf{a}^T \mathbf{K} \mathbf{t} + \frac{1}{2} \mathbf{t}^T \mathbf{t} + \frac{\lambda}{2} \mathbf{a}^T \mathbf{K} \mathbf{a} \quad (4.6)$$

- The solution is found by minimising (4.6) (to find (4.7) will be demonstrated during the exercise)
 - First derivative with respect to $\mathbf{a}$
 - Setting the derivative equal to zero
 - Dissolve to $\mathbf{a}$
- **Solution:**

(4.7)

- This gives the following expression of the output variable

(4.8)

- Where $\mathbf{k}(\mathbf{x}) = \mathbf{f}(\mathbf{x}) \cdot \mathbf{f}(\mathbf{x}_n)$ is a vector of kernel functions having the following components: $k(\mathbf{x}, \mathbf{x}_n)$
- This way, we have shown that we can express the least squares (LS) regression completely with kernel functions
- Later: this way, we will utilise kernels for generating high-dimensional transform spaces

4.3 Generation of Kernel Functions

- **Simple approach:** choose a set of nonlinear functions $f_i(\mathbf{x})$ and construct the kernel function with it

(4.9)

- **Alternative approach:** direct generation, but a check for validity is required

- Example in $\mathbb{R}^2$:

$$\mathbf{x} = \begin{pmatrix} x_1 \\ x_2 \end{pmatrix}$$

$$\mathbf{x}' = \begin{pmatrix} x'_1 \\ x'_2 \end{pmatrix}$$

→ The mapping contains all 2nd order monomials with specific weights

- General and simple test [Shawe-Taylor & Cristianini, 2004]
 - Gram matrix $\mathbf{K}$ must be positive semidefinite: $\mathbf{x}^T \mathbf{K} \mathbf{x} \geq 0 \quad \forall \mathbf{x} \in \mathbb{R}^d$
- **Further approach:** use already known kernel functions as building blocks
 - Given are two admissible kernel functions $k_1(\mathbf{x}, \mathbf{x}'), k_2(\mathbf{x}, \mathbf{x}')$
 - Let $f(\mathbf{x}): \mathbb{R}^d \mapsto \mathbb{R}$ be a continuous function, let $c \in \mathbb{R}$ be a constant value
 - Let $\mathbf{f}(\mathbf{x}): \mathbb{R}^d \mapsto \mathbb{R}^D$ be a continuous f, let $p(y): \mathbb{R} \mapsto \mathbb{R}$ by a polynomial with non-negative coefficients
 - From them, further valid kernel functions can be constructed:

$$(1) \quad k(\mathbf{x}, \mathbf{x}') = c k_1(\mathbf{x}, \mathbf{x}')$$

$$(2) \quad k(\mathbf{x}, \mathbf{x}') = f(\mathbf{x}) k_1(\mathbf{x}, \mathbf{x}') f(\mathbf{x}')$$

$$(3) \quad k(\mathbf{x}, \mathbf{x}') = p(k_1(\mathbf{x}, \mathbf{x}'))$$

$$(4) \quad k(\mathbf{x}, \mathbf{x}') = \exp(k_1(\mathbf{x}, \mathbf{x}'))$$

$$(5) \quad k(\mathbf{x}, \mathbf{x}') = k_1(\mathbf{x}, \mathbf{x}') + k_2(\mathbf{x}, \mathbf{x}')$$

$$(6) \quad k(\mathbf{x}, \mathbf{x}') = k_1(\mathbf{x}, \mathbf{x}') k_2(\mathbf{x}, \mathbf{x}')$$

$$(7) \quad k(\mathbf{x}, \mathbf{x}') = k_1(\mathbf{f}(\mathbf{x}), \mathbf{f}(\mathbf{x}'))$$

$$(8) \quad k(\mathbf{x}, \mathbf{x}') = \mathbf{x}^T \mathbf{A} \mathbf{x}'$$

(4.10)

- (3), (8): Polynomial kernel functions $k(\mathbf{x}, \mathbf{x}') = (\mathbf{x} \cdot \mathbf{x}')^2$ containing only 2nd order monomials
- (3), (8): Generalized form $k(\mathbf{x}, \mathbf{x}') = (\mathbf{x} \cdot \mathbf{x}' + c)^2$ containing monomials of 0th, 1st, and 2nd order
- (3), (8): Polynomial kernel functions $k(\mathbf{x}, \mathbf{x}') = (\mathbf{x} \cdot \mathbf{x}')^d$ containing all monomials of the order d
- (3), (8): Generalized form $k(\mathbf{x}, \mathbf{x}') = (\mathbf{x} \cdot \mathbf{x}' + c)^d$ containing all monomials of order 0, 1, up to d
- Gaussian kernel function (which has no pre-factor because it must not be a pdf)

(4.11)

- Derivation of the squared function: due to (2) and (4) in (4.10) and due to the validity of linear kernel functions $\kappa(\mathbf{x}, \mathbf{x}') = \mathbf{x} \cdot \mathbf{x}'$ the following results:

$$\|\mathbf{x} - \mathbf{x}'\|^2 = (\mathbf{x} - \mathbf{x}') \cdot (\mathbf{x} - \mathbf{x}') = \mathbf{x} \cdot \mathbf{x} - 2 \mathbf{x} \cdot \mathbf{x}' + \mathbf{x}' \cdot \mathbf{x}'$$

$$(4.11) \rightarrow k(\mathbf{x}, \mathbf{x}') = \exp\left(-\frac{\mathbf{x} \cdot \mathbf{x}}{2\sigma^2}\right) \exp\left(-\frac{\mathbf{x} \cdot \mathbf{x}'}{\sigma^2}\right) \exp\left(-\frac{\mathbf{x}' \cdot \mathbf{x}'}{2\sigma^2}\right) = f(\mathbf{x}) \exp(c k_1(\mathbf{x}, \mathbf{x}')) f(\mathbf{x}')$$

- **Important:** the function vector in (4.9) which corresponds to the Gaussian kernel function is of infinite dimensionality ($D \rightarrow \infty$); there are infinitely many eigenfunctions f_i and eigenvalues λ_i
- **Theorem of Mercer:** $k(\mathbf{x}, \mathbf{x}') = \sum_{i=1}^D \lambda_i f_i(\mathbf{x}) f_i(\mathbf{x}') = \mathbf{f}(\mathbf{x}) \cdot \mathbf{f}(\mathbf{x}')$
- Squared Euclidean distance between $\mathbf{x}, \mathbf{x}'$ can be replaced by the nonlinear kernel $k(\mathbf{x}, \mathbf{x}') = \mathbf{x} \cdot \mathbf{x}'$:

$$\|\mathbf{x} - \mathbf{x}'\|^2 = k(\mathbf{x}, \mathbf{x}) + k(\mathbf{x}', \mathbf{x}') - 2 k(\mathbf{x}, \mathbf{x}')$$

- Likewise, kernel function approaches can also be formed for symbolic features and for objects such as graphs, quantities, strings, text documents, probability density functions.
- Sigmoidal kernel function [Vapnik, 1995] with free parameters $a, b \in \mathbb{R}$

(4.12)

- Gram-Matrix of sigmoidal kernels is however not positive semidefinite

4.4 Theorem of Cover

- Separability of feature vectors [Cover, 1965]

A nonlinear separable classification problem is linear separable with higher probability in a higher than in a lower dimensional transform space, if the space is not densely occupied.

- The last part of Cover's theorem is not of high importance
 - Densely occupied spaces are not important in practice, as the sizes of the data sets are always too small
 - Densely occupied spaces are currently not important in theory, since we are able to construct infinitely dimensional transform spaces
- Given
 - Training set: ⁽¹⁾
 - Two class regions (two domains): ⁽²⁾
 - Transform vector $\mathbf{f}(\mathbf{x})$ containing D different nonlinear functions: ⁽³⁾
- **Dichotomy:** Every separation function of a sample $\mathcal{S}$ which generates two non-empty subsets of $\mathcal{S}$
- Any dichotomy $\{G_1, G_2\}$ is f -separable if a vector $\mathbf{w} \in \mathbb{R}^D$ exists, such that the following holds:

(4.13)

- I.e. the regions are linearly separable in the f -space with **separation function:** $\mathbf{w} \cdot \mathbf{f}(\mathbf{x}) = 0$
- A corresponding class of relatively simple mappings is obtained by linear combinations of monomials (product terms in the coordinates) of order r
- That is, the separation function is a linear combination of monomials:

(4.14)

- Within the d -dimensional space there exist q different monomials:

(4.15)

- Separation functions (4.14) are polynomial functions: hyperplanes, hyperellipsoids, hyperparaboloids, hyperhyperboloid, cubic hyperplanes, ...

- Examples in $\mathbb{R}^2$: f -separable dichotomies

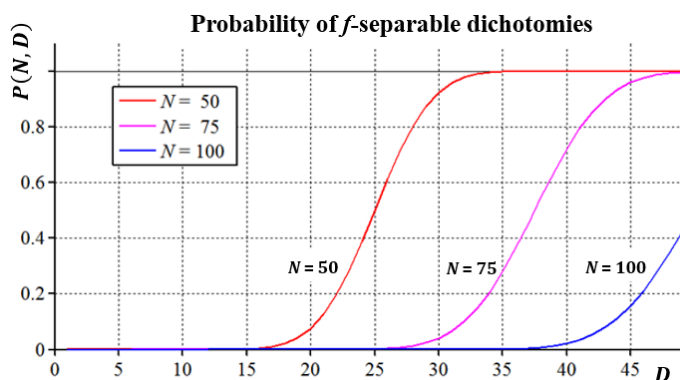
a) Linear ⁽¹⁾

b) quadratic ⁽²⁾

- Random experiment: let $(\mathbf{x}_n, t_n)$ be randomly distributed and i.i.d.
- Let the regions G_1, G_2 be equally probable:
a priori probabilities are at 50 %
- Then, the number of **f -separable dichotomies** is: ⁽³⁾
- And the number of **all dichotomies** is: ⁽⁴⁾
- Their ratio is equal to the **probability** $P(N, D)$ that a dichotomy is f -separable:

(4.16)

- For $D = \frac{N}{2}$ we always have: $P(N, D) = \frac{1}{2}$



Probability $P(N, D)$ of f -separable dichotomies versus dimensionality D of the transform space for three different sample sizes N .

- Blessing of high dimensionality
The higher the dimensionality D of the transform space, the higher is $P(N, D)$
- In infinite dimensional spaces, each dichotomy is linearly separable: $D \rightarrow \infty \Rightarrow P(N, D) = 1$
- **Separation capacity** of a separation function
 - If K is the maximum number of feature vectors that are f -separable, and K is considered a random variable, then it follows for the probability that $K = N$ holds:

(4.17)

- Because f has D degrees of freedom in the D -dimensional space
- It can be shown [Haykin, 2009] that (4.17) corresponds to a negative binomial distribution for binary random experiments with equal probability for both events, such that:
The expected maximum number of f -separable vectors in a D -dimensional space is equal to $2D$

4.5 Radial Basis Function Networks (RBF nets)

Regression with linear combination of fixed RBF

- RBF only depend on the radial distance between $\mathbf{x}$ and a centroid vector $\boldsymbol{\mu}_n$ such that:

(4.18)

- Given: sample ⁽¹⁾
- Sought: continuous function $h(\mathbf{x})$ approximating the given target values t_n for all given feature vectors $\mathbf{x}_n$: ⁽²⁾
- Approach: linear combination of RBF [Powell, 1987]:

(4.19)

- The coefficients w_n are found with least squares minimization

Interpolation: Because the number of coefficients is the same as the number of constraints, a function must be found that runs exactly through each target value: ⁽³⁾

- In practice, the target values and the feature vectors have random noise, so that an interpolation solution is undesirable (overfitting); i.e. we have mostly regression tasks

Structural Risk Minimisation (SRM): Regularised approach [Poggio & Girosi, 1990]

- By regularisation: no interpolation $h(\mathbf{x}_n) = t_n$, but regression $h(\mathbf{x}_n) \approx t_n$
- Optimal solution: approximation with eigenfunctions of a differential operator (Greens functions)
- **Nadaraya-Watson model:** at each feature vector $\mathbf{x}_n$ an RBF is centred
- However, this is computationally time-consuming and ineffective for large amounts of data
- It is more effective to find $K < N$ representative feature vectors (support vectors)
→ sparse kernel methods: support vector regression (later more)

Kernel Regression (Nadaraya-Watson Model) [Nadaraya 1964], [Watson, 1964]

- Model of the joint pdf $p(\mathbf{x}, t)$ with N density functions $f(\mathbf{x}, t)$ centered at each feature vector $\mathbf{x}_n \in S$

$$p(\mathbf{x}, t) = \frac{1}{N} \sum_{n=1}^N f(\mathbf{x} - \mathbf{x}_n, t - t_n) \quad (4.20)$$

- Regression function $h(\mathbf{x})$ represented by mean values of the target variable t with weighting by the pdf of t given $\mathbf{x}$:

$$h(\mathbf{x}) = \mathbb{E}(t|\mathbf{x}) = \frac{\int_{-\infty}^{\infty} t p(\mathbf{x}, t) dt}{\int p(\mathbf{x}, t) dt} = \frac{\sum_n \int t f(\mathbf{x} - \mathbf{x}_n, t - t_n) dt}{\sum_n \int f(\mathbf{x} - \mathbf{x}_n, t - t_n) dt} \quad (4.21)$$

- Let the kernel function $k(\mathbf{x}, \mathbf{x}_n)$, $\sum_{n=1}^N k(\mathbf{x}, \mathbf{x}_n) = 1$ have the following form:

$$k(\mathbf{x}, \mathbf{x}_n) = \frac{\int t f(\mathbf{x} - \mathbf{x}_n, t - t_n) dt}{\sum_n \int f(\mathbf{x} - \mathbf{x}_n, t - t_n) dt} \quad (4.22)$$

- Then (4.21) can be expressed as kernel regression with $\mathbf{k}(\mathbf{x})$ of Eq. (4.8) and $\mathbf{t}$ of Eq. (4.5):

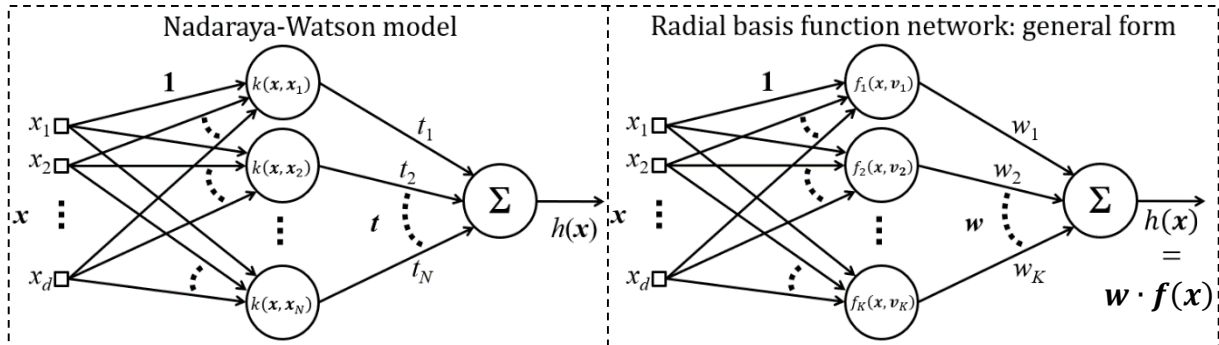
$$h(\mathbf{x}) = \sum_{n=1}^N k(\mathbf{x}, \mathbf{x}_n) t_n = \mathbf{k}(\mathbf{x}) \cdot \mathbf{t} \quad (4.22)$$

RBF networks for regression and classification

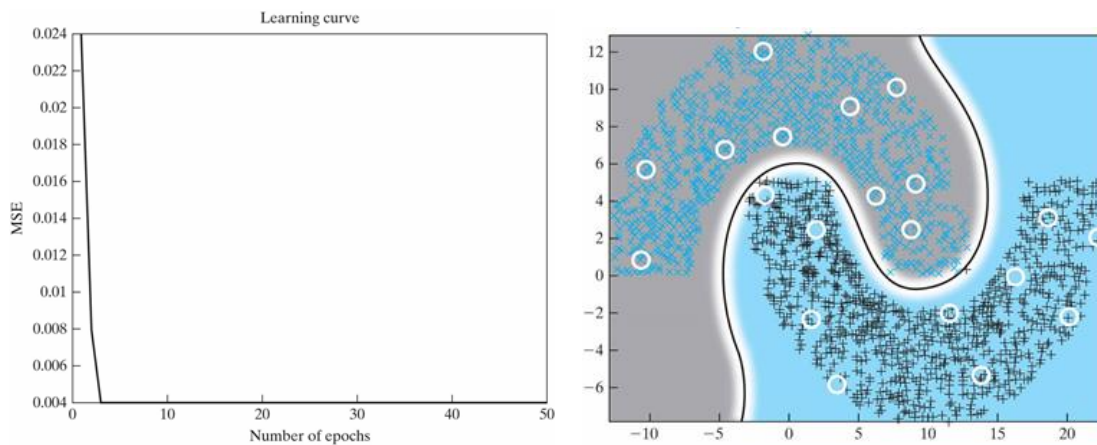
- Input layer: Distribution nodes for the components of input vector $\mathbf{x} \in \mathbb{R}^d$
- Hidden layer: Nonlinear transform using RBF centred at every $\mathbf{x}_n \in S$
 - E.g. using the Gaussian RBF with distinct standard deviations: $f_n(\mathbf{x}) = \exp\left(-\frac{1}{2\sigma_n^2} \|\mathbf{x} - \mathbf{x}_n\|^2\right) \forall n \in [N]$
 - Layer has no weights: equally weighted distribution of the components of $\mathbf{x}$
 - For larger data sets: RBF should be centred to K prototype vectors $\mathbf{v}_j$ instead to N vectors $\mathbf{x}_n$
 - Number of hidden neurons: $K < N$
 - Unsupervised training with the **k-means** or **Fuzzy c-means algorithm** to find $\mathbf{v}_j$

- Output layer: Weighted sum of RBF output values
 - Only one output neuron with linear activation function for regression tasks, or
 - Only one output neuron with step function for classification tasks
 - Supervised training → Recursive least squares minimisation (RLS) to find $\mathbf{w}$: see section 4.6

- **Example plots** [Haykin S (2008) *Neural Networks and Learning Machines*. 3rd ed., Prentice Hall]



- RBF net, $\mathbf{x} \in \mathbb{R}^2$, $\mathcal{S}$ is nonlinearly separable, $N = 3000$; number of prototype vectors: $K = 20$



4.6 Recursive Least Mean Squares Minimisation (RLMS)

- Training method of the weight vector of the output neuron of an RBF network
- LS estimation (3.40) according to the maximum likelihood principle: ⁽¹⁾

- ML is an unbiased estimation: ⁽²⁾

- In the same way the approach is formulated here:

(4.24)

- Let the number of centroid vectors localised by K-means be K
- Then we have the $K \times K$ **auto-correlation matrix** of the output signals of the hidden layer neurons

$$\hat{\mathbf{R}}_{XX}(i) = \sum_{n=1}^i \mathbf{f}(\mathbf{x}_n) \mathbf{f}^T(\mathbf{x}_n) ; \mathbf{f}(\mathbf{x}_n) = \begin{pmatrix} f(\mathbf{x}_n, \mathbf{x}_1) \\ f(\mathbf{x}_n, \mathbf{x}_2) \\ \vdots \\ f(\mathbf{x}_n, \mathbf{x}_K) \end{pmatrix} ; f(\mathbf{x}_n, \mathbf{x}_k) = \exp\left(-\frac{1}{2\sigma^2} \|\mathbf{x}_n - \mathbf{x}_k\|^2\right) \quad (4.25)$$

- The following applies to the discrete cross-correlation function between the target variable and the output signals of the hidden layer neurons, i.e. their **cross-correlation vector**:

$$\hat{\mathbf{r}}_{XT}(i) = \sum_{n=1}^i \mathbf{f}(\mathbf{x}_n) t_n \quad (4.26)$$

- Sought: unknown weight vector $\hat{\mathbf{w}}(i)$

- **LS solution** by inverting $\hat{R}_{XX}$ is often **expensive** and numerically **not stable**
 - Therefore, a **recursive approach** is preferred, so that one iteratively approaches an optimal solution
 - Reformulation of the cross-correlation vector
- (3)

- Recursive approach for the auto-correlation matrix:

(4)

- The error term $e(i)$ is called **innovation**, because it drives iterative modifications
- A priori estimation of the error term

(5)

- For the cross-correlation vector it follows

(6)

- Put into the initial equation (4.24) the following results

(7)

- From this the iteration formula for the weight vector follows:

(4.27)

- The recursive approach for the auto-correlation matrix is found by applying the theorem for the inverses of composite matrices (see exercise)
- The following comes out:

(4.28)

- Introduction of two simplifying abbreviations

- **State-error covariance matrix:** $\hat{P}(i) = \hat{R}_{XX}^{-1}(i-1) = \frac{1}{\sigma_w^2} \mathbb{E}[(\mathbf{w} - \hat{\mathbf{w}})(\mathbf{w} - \hat{\mathbf{w}})^T]$

- **Gain vector:** $\hat{\mathbf{g}}(x_n) = \hat{R}_{XX}^{-1}(i-1) \mathbf{f}(x_n) = \hat{P}(i) \mathbf{f}(x_n)$

- This gives the recursive approach of the sought weight vector as follows:

(4.29)

Summary of the RLS algorithm

Given: $S = \{(x_n, t_n) | x_n \in \mathcal{X} \subset \mathbb{R}^d, t_n \in \mathcal{T} \subset \mathbb{R}\}$

Initialisation: $i = 0, \hat{\mathbf{w}}(0) = \mathbf{0}, P(0) = \frac{1}{\lambda} \mathbf{I}$

Computations: Increment i , set $n = i$

$$\text{(step 1)} \quad \mathbf{P}(i) = \mathbf{P}(i-1) - \frac{\mathbf{P}(i-1) \mathbf{f}(x_n) \mathbf{f}^T(x_n) \mathbf{P}(i-1)}{1 + \mathbf{f}^T(x_n) \mathbf{P}(i-1) \mathbf{f}(x_n)}$$

$$\text{(step 2)} \quad \mathbf{g}(i) = \mathbf{P}(i) \mathbf{f}(x_n)$$

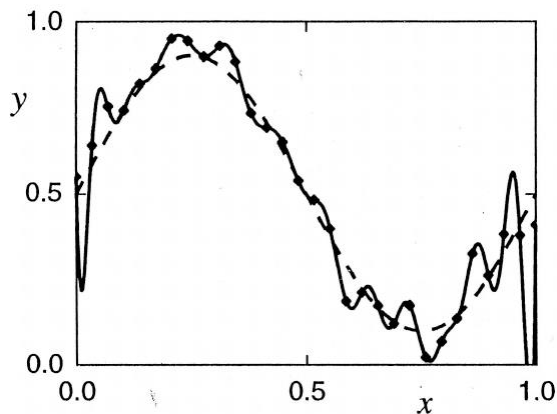
$$\text{(step 3)} \quad e(i) = t_n - \hat{\mathbf{w}}(i-1) \cdot \mathbf{f}(x_n)$$

$$\text{(step 4)} \quad \hat{\mathbf{w}}(i) = \hat{\mathbf{w}}(i-1) + \mathbf{g}(i) e(i)$$

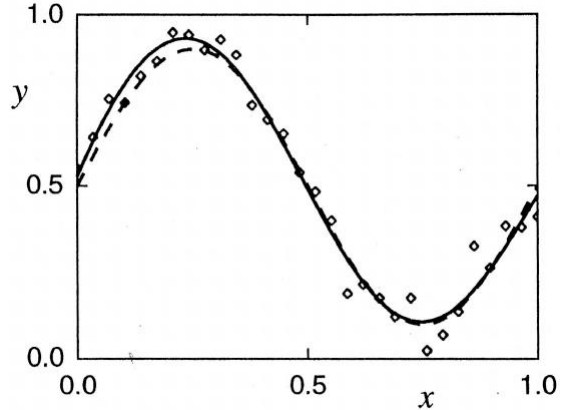
Example [Bishop C (1995) *Neural Networks for Pattern Recognition*. 1st ed., Oxford University Press]

- Training set: $S = \{(x_n, t_n) | x_n \in \mathbb{R}, t_n \in \mathbb{R}, n \in [N], N = 30\}$ with equidistantly selected $x_n \in (0,1)$ and with target function: $t_n = 0.5 + 0.4 \sin(2\pi x_n) + \varepsilon_n, \varepsilon_n \sim \mathcal{N}(0,0.05)$

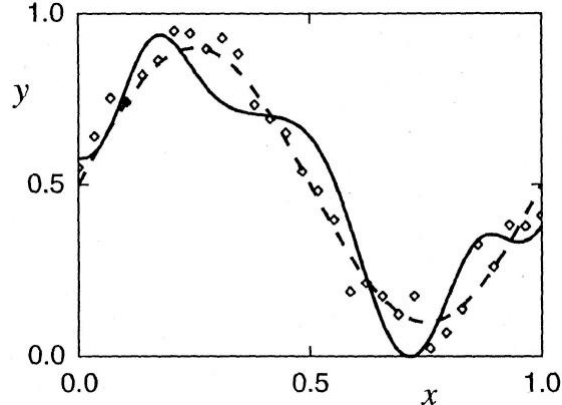
a) LS solution ($\lambda = 0$), $K = N, \sigma = 0.067 \approx 2d_{avg}$



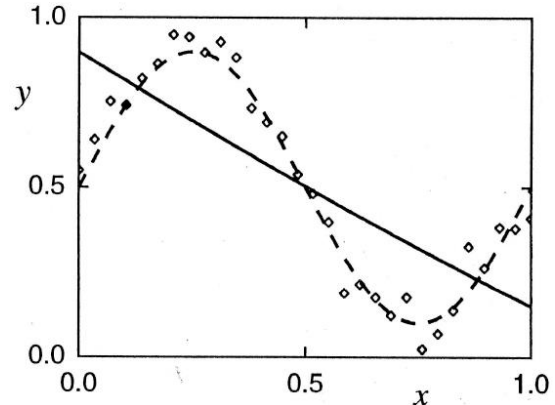
b) RLS solution ($\lambda > 0$), $K = 5, \sigma = 0.4 \approx 2d_{avg}$



b) RLS solution ($\lambda > 0$), $K = 5, \sigma = 0.08$



d) RLS solution ($\lambda > 0$), $K = 5, \sigma = 10$



Final remarks

- RLS aims at minimising the following objective function:

$$J(\mathbf{w}) = \frac{1}{2} \sum_{n=1}^i [t_n - \hat{\mathbf{w}}(n) \cdot \mathbf{f}(x_n)]^2 + \frac{\lambda}{2} \|\hat{\mathbf{w}}(n)\|^2 \quad (4.30)$$

- Hidden layer centroids have to be adapted by unsupervised training

- E.g. k -means or Fuzzy c -means for adaptation of prototype vectors as centroids
- Parameters of the RBF kernel functions must be pre-determined or to be optimised empirically
 - In case of Gaussian RBF only the kernel width σ must be determined
- [Lowe, 1989] suggested to determine σ uniformly for all neurons as follows: $\sigma = \frac{d_{max}}{\sqrt{2K}}$

where d_{max} is the maximum distance between all centroids